

Introduction: The Imperial Presidency in the History of Space Exploration

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The aggrandizement of presidential power during the administrations of John F. Kennedy, Lyndon B. Johnson, and Richard M. Nixon prompted a number of commentators to criticize the ease with which chief executives overwhelmed other centers of power in the United States. By the time of the Watergate affair, the expansion and abuse of presidential power relative to the Congress and courts had created a full-blown governmental crisis. Historians and political scientists such as Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr. decried the creation of what he called "the imperial presidency."¹ Like other commentators in the mid-1970s, Schlesinger feared that deference to the president had upset the traditional system of checks and balances.

This book deals with people who found relief rather than anxiety in the imperial presidency. Individuals who worked to promote the U.S. space program saw in the powerful presidency a solution to their most pressing problem—how to obtain the unfettered political support necessary to carry out projects like the expedition to the Moon in a political system that typically resisted long-range commitments. For space supporters, dynamic presidential leadership made big projects possible. For them, the imperial presidency was a godsend rather than a curse.

Concern over the imperial presidency among academics and political commentators was short-lived. Presidential power was in full decline by the administrations of Gerald R. Ford and Jimmy Carter in the latter half of the 1970s. Historians and political scientists, such as Thomas Cronin, issued tracts lamenting the gap between public expectations and presidential power.²

People promoting an aggressive space policy generally ignored these developments. Bewitched by Kennedy's 1961 commitment to send Amer-

icans to the Moon, they continued to profess their belief that visionary presidential leadership could overcome the obstacles created by constitutional checks and balances. Their faith in the ability of presidents to dominate the political system persisted long after outside commentators had concluded, in the words of Hugh Heclo, that presidential government was an illusion: "Presidential government is the idea that the president, backed by the people, is or can be in charge of governing the country. . . . This is an 'illusion' in the fullest sense of the word, for it is based on appearances that mislead or deceive."³

By examining the history of presidential leadership in the U.S. space program, this book reveals how the illusion of presidential government affected public policy. Not unexpectedly, the illusion created expectations that could not be satisfied. Space advocates pressed for the salvation that presidential leadership seemed to provide. Their faith in the capacity of presidential power to free them from the political thicket prevented them from adopting a more complex view of the forces affecting space policy. Not until the 1990s did this faith subside.

The ability of space exploration supporters to find salvation in the modern presidency drew its inspiration from Kennedy, who certainly had few illusions about the extent of presidential power when he delivered his speech challenging Americans to commit themselves "to achieving the goal, before this decade is out, of landing a man on the moon and returning him safely to earth." He announced that goal on May 25, 1961, as part of a speech before a joint session of Congress dealing with what he called urgent national needs brought on by the rigors of cold war rivalry with the Soviet Union. Kennedy departed extensively from his prepared text, pleading with congressional leaders to "consider this matter carefully . . . as it is a heavy burden." Kennedy added to his prepared remarks the following aside: "There is no sense in agreeing, or desiring, that the United States take an affirmative position in outer space unless we are prepared to do the work and bear the burdens to make it successful."⁴ Kennedy knew that Congress could undercut his legislative initiatives by refusing to authorize them or, worse still, by authorizing his initiatives without appropriating the funds to carry them out. There is every reason to believe that he had a clear grasp of that political reality.

When Kennedy entered the White House, many people hoped that his inauguration would end the years of political deadlock most recently perpetuated by conflict between the Democratic Congress and the Republican president, Dwight D. Eisenhower. This did not occur. Kennedy's effort to break up the conservative coalition on the House Rules Committee

succeeded by a mere five votes and the Senate, his own party refused any hope Kennedy might have had. Republicans provided the emergency feed grains bill through against his minimum wage bill by 5 Kennedy's experience confirmed that Rossiter, who had written during his administration that the president's tool was one bit sharper than they were forty

Neither party loyalty nor presidential support for Kennedy's measures. As of 1960, the powers of the presidency are not to persuade.⁸ Kennedy was obliged to produce ad hoc coalitions for each bill to Capitol Hill. Frustration over the political scientist James McGregor *Democracy* in 1967, in which he argues that presidents constituted a separate political party employed to win elections.⁹

On the way back from Capitol Hill, Kennedy worried aloud about lack of enthusiasm. Based on the experience of the previous year for concern. Proposals far more moderate countered opposition from various sectors. Kennedy had not yet discovered at the time the coming resistance.

The May 25 speech seemed to have sped through the Congress. The bill to reach the Moon passed the Senate one so little opposition that the senators did not vote. The debate in the House was a lopsided vote of 354 to 59. Kennedy by members of both parties" as he signed initiatives on July 21.¹¹

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succeeded by a mere five votes and only with the help of Republicans.⁵ In the Senate, his own party refused to modify the filibuster rule, scuttling any hope Kennedy might have had for civil rights legislation in that session. Republicans provided the margin necessary to squeak Kennedy's emergency feed grains bill through the House, while conservatives rallied against his minimum wage bill by substituting a watered-down measure.⁶ Kennedy's experience confirmed the words of the political scientist Clinton Rossiter, who had written during the midpoint of the Eisenhower administration that the president's tools for influencing Congress were "not one bit sharper than they were forty years ago."⁷

Neither party loyalty nor presidential prestige secured congressional support for Kennedy's measures. As Richard E. Neustadt had warned in 1960, the powers of the presidency amounted to little more than the power to persuade.⁸ Kennedy was obliged to use his powers of persuasion to produce ad hoc coalitions for each new legislative initiative that he sent to Capitol Hill. Frustration over the lack of presidential power led the political scientist James McGregor Burns to publish *The Deadlock of Democracy* in 1967, in which he argued that congressional committee leaders constituted a separate political party independent of that which presidents employed to win elections.⁹

On the way back from Capitol Hill after his 1961 speech, Kennedy worried aloud about lack of enthusiasm for his space program proposals.¹⁰ Based on the experience of the previous four months, he had good reason for concern. Proposals far more modest than the space initiative had encountered opposition from various sectors of the political spectrum. And Kennedy had not yet discovered at that time a reliable method for overcoming resistance.

The May 25 speech seemed to change that. Kennedy's space proposals sped through the Congress. The bill authorizing the buildup necessary to reach the Moon passed the Senate one month later on June 28. There was so little opposition that the senators did not even bother to take a recorded vote. The debate in the House was perfunctory, and the bill passed by a lopsided vote of 354 to 59. Kennedy noted the "overwhelming support by members of both parties" as he signed the bill authorizing his space initiatives on July 21.¹¹

For many years, space boosters had searched for the key that would unlock the public treasury and provide them with the largesse necessary to undertake an aggressive program of space exploration. They had promoted space exploration through science fiction and popular astronautics. They had tied their dreams to the ballistic missile development movement, to the

International Geophysical Year, and to public fears about the cold war. They had received for this effort sufficient political support within the Eisenhower administration for only a modest program of satellite research and a single-seat Mercury capsule that only once spent more than a day in space.

With a single public declaration, Kennedy created a crash program to send humans to the Moon, as well as a supporting satellite and rocket program. In a remarkable departure from their prior behavior, other politicians deferred to Kennedy's goal. Congress did not undercut the initiative. The National Aeronautics and Space Administration (NASA) received the rarest of political commitments—eight years of uninterrupted support for a very public long-range science and technology endeavor. The speech in which Kennedy set the lunar goal remains one of the most memorable moments of that generation, in part because the results departed so dramatically from political norms. With such results, how could space enthusiasts not wish for an encore? Pundits applauded Kennedy's lunar commitment as well as his deft handling of other cold war crises, such as the 1961 Berlin showdown and the 1962 Cuban missile confrontation, more examples of presidential ability to act alone.

In fact, the political stage for Kennedy's dramatic lunar initiative was set well before he entered the presidency. His predecessor's parsimonious space program was motivated by a realistic desire to invest limited funds in military applications, such as reconnaissance satellites, rather than engage in what Eisenhower characterized as space stunts.¹² Democratic leaders, especially those in the Senate, recognized the symbolic importance of winning the space race in order to build trust in U.S. capabilities among people at home and abroad. After the launch of *Sputnik I* and *II* in late 1957, Majority Leader Lyndon B. Johnson urged Democratic senators to put aside budgetary restraints and engage the Soviets in the race into space. "Control of space means control of the world," Johnson warned.¹³ Thus, politicians did not defer to Kennedy's decision so much as they endorsed what had already been decided.¹⁴ Kennedy's moment is less dramatic in this context.

Afterward, the intellectual climate changed. In 1970, George Reedy, who had served as a special assistant to President Johnson, wrote a book in which he argued that the ability of presidents to rise above external dissent and criticism isolated them from the very forces designed to hold executives in check. "There is built into the presidency," Reedy argued, "a series of devices that tend to remove the occupant of the Oval Room from all of the forces which require most [people] to rub up against the hard facts of life on a daily basis."¹⁵

Reedy was responding to the action who seemed to behave more like monarch. In some instances, these presidents and were above the law. The growth of presidential power by 1973, had produced "an unprecedented branch, of Congress, of the press and involving war and peace and the economy grew at the expense of other centers." "Like the cowbird, it hatched its own nest," Schlesinger observed. "If this trend the President, instead of being accountable to public opinion, would be accountable every elections, the President would be accountable and would govern, as much as he could."

All of this made for an odd situation for ration enthusiasts. They had benefited and prerogative. People in the business of the rise of presidential power nor depleted by decree. Instead, they asked for it to identify Johnson and Nixon to endorse exploration advocates concluded that it late a clear national commitment could give the civilian space program the perspective general visions into engineering accomplishments.

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Reedy was responding to the actions of Presidents Johnson and Nixon, who seemed to behave more like monarchs than constitutional executives. In some instances, these presidents and their aides literally behaved as if they were above the law. The growth of presidential power, Schlesinger wrote in 1973, had produced "an unprecedented exclusion of the rest of the executive branch, of Congress, of the press and of public opinion" from decisions involving war and peace and the economy. Accordingly, the imperial presidency grew at the expense of other centers of power in the American polity. "Like the cowbird, it hatched its own eggs and pushed the others out of the nest," Schlesinger observed. "If this transformation were carried through, the President, instead of being accountable every day to Congress and public opinion, would be accountable every four years to the electorate. Between elections, the President would be accountable only through impeachment and would govern, as much as he could, by decree."¹⁶

All of this made for an odd situation within the network of space exploration enthusiasts. They had benefited from the use of presidential power and prerogative. People in the business of space exploration neither lamented the rise of presidential power nor deplored the ability of presidents to rule by decree. Instead, they asked for it to be done again. They implored Presidents Johnson and Nixon to endorse even more ambitious ventures. Space exploration advocates concluded that President Kennedy's ability to formulate a clear national commitment could be repeated, and in so doing would give the civilian space program the political protection it needed to turn general visions into engineering accomplishments.

Presidential leadership seemed even more imperative as the 1970s arrived. The scarcity of funds, the decline of superpower competition, and declining public interest in space all conspired to weaken the case for a strong space effort. These forces also weakened the ability of presidents to build consensus for a strong program, a point lost on too many space pioneers. Especially within NASA, strong presidential leadership was still viewed as the essential ingredient that would break the political logjam and allow leaders of the civilian space program to pursue their most ambitious goals.

The importance of presidential leadership had been impressed upon space promoters since the dawn of the space age in 1957. When Eisenhower proposed an exploration program that space enthusiasts viewed as excessively timid in the winter of 1957-58, the boosters appealed to both Congress and the White House. The House Space Committee attacked Eisenhower's proposals as a "beginner" program that lacked "proper imagination and drive."¹⁷ In spite of congressional pressure for a more ambitious effort, led

by personalities no less powerful than Senate Majority Leader Lyndon Johnson, Congress was unable to shake the administration from its plan.¹⁸ What others, including members of Congress, could not do to bend Eisenhower, Kennedy seemingly did with one speech, creating the belief that the space program depended upon the willingness of the president to set expansive, idealistic, long-range goals.

This turn toward the executive guided virtually all subsequent efforts to establish goals in space beyond the landings on the Moon. Those efforts were attuned to an executive decision, with Congress apparently playing a secondary role. In 1969, President Nixon established a Space Task Group to advise "on the direction which the U.S. space program should take in the post-Apollo period."¹⁹ Eleven years later, a transition team urged President Ronald Reagan to make a "definitive statement on space policy" at the earliest possible time. "A viable space program," the team members wrote, "must have purpose and direction." Without presidential leadership, they warned, the space program would "waste away."²⁰ Even Congress joined the clamor for executive leadership over the future space program. In 1984, Congress required the president to establish a National Commission on Space to map out future space policies.²¹

As the White House moved to occupy the center of space policy activity, the process for reviewing initiatives within the Executive Office of the President became more elaborate. Kennedy revived the National Aeronautics and Space Council, a White House body that Eisenhower had opposed, and made then Vice President Johnson its chair. The vice president acted as an intermediary to resolve disputes involving two or more agencies, especially NASA and the Department of Defense.²² By the end of the 1960s, little important space policy making took place beyond the sphere of White House control, in spite of powerful congressional and bureaucratic interests that resided outside. Taking an approach that differed in form rather than substance, Nixon relied upon his Office of Management and Budget to analyze space issues and resolve interdepartmental disputes. The president, of course, retained final control over space policy decisions.²³

As if in an effort to perpetuate the idea of executive leadership, the space policy apparatus within the White House grew more complex as presidential power declined. In 1982, President Reagan established the Senior Interagency Group for Space, a subcabinet council chaired by the assistant for National Security Affairs and empowered "to provide for orderly and rapid referral of space policy issues to the President for decisions."²⁴ In 1989, President George Bush recreated the National Aeronautics and Space Council to "oversee the implementation . . . of the president's space poli-

cy." By then, seven executive agency White House staff participated in the

As the machinery for executive control language of presidential commentary. In his May 1961 speech before Congress, Kennedy urged lawmakers to approve his initiatives statement endorsing the space shuttle. It did not even mention the legislative branch. When announced from his presidential library, the United States should proceed at once with the development of a new type of space transportation system. When the imperial presidency had fallen, Reagan said. When Kennedy, he appeared before a joint session of Congress to announce the nation's next major human spaceflight. In 1984, "Tonight I am directing NASA to develop a space station and to do it within a decade." In 1989 that the United States undertook the journey to the Moon and go on to Mars did the president exercise congressional power. Speaking from the new Space Museum on the National Mall, the president said that the spacefaring nation would be decided

While presidential power captivated the American executive observed its slow decline. The presidents have been the giants. American Cronin explained in a book first published in 1984, the powers of the office, Cronin warned that the presidential prerogatives that would be soon disappear. Schlesinger's *Imperial Presidency* when Nixon's war-making powers, established by the president, drove Nixon from office.³⁰ "As soon as the president's 'imperial' of Vietnam and Watergate subsided, the president's power was served." Space advocates failed to unite. They sought to revive executive prerogatives and cooperation into space projects. In the 1980s, the divisions increasingly affected foreign policy. The 1980s presidency marked the dividing line. The 1990s to worship at the altar of presidential power. It had been all downhill since the 1960s in the space policy network.

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ded virtually all subsequent efforts to landings on the Moon. Those efforts, with Congress apparently playing a supporting role, Nixon established a Space Task Force in 1969, which the U.S. space program should have followed. Ten years later, a transition team urged a "definitive statement on space policy and a long-range space program," the team memorandum stated. "Without presidential leadership, the program would 'waste away.'"²⁰ Even without presidential leadership over the future space program, the president to establish a National Space Council to direct future space policies.²¹

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cy." By then, seven executive agencies as well as various members of the White House staff participated in the executive review process for space.²⁵

As the machinery for executive decisions became more elaborate, the language of presidential commentaries about space became more definitive. In his May 1961 speech before Congress, Kennedy practically begged lawmakers to approve his initiatives on space. Eleven years later, Nixon's statement endorsing the space shuttle as America's next major initiative did not even mention the legislative branch. "I have decided today," Nixon announced from his presidential retreat in California, "that the United States should proceed at once with the development of an entirely new type of space transportation system."²⁶ Even though the star of the imperial presidency had fallen, Reagan was even less deferential when, like Kennedy, he appeared before a joint session of Congress to launch the nation's next major human spaceflight initiative. Reagan told lawmakers in 1984, "Tonight I am *directing* NASA to develop a permanently manned space station and to do it within a decade."²⁷ Only when Bush proposed in 1989 that the United States undertake a massive effort to return to the Moon and go on to Mars did the president acknowledge the growth in congressional power. Speaking from the steps of the Smithsonian's Air and Space Museum on the National Mall, he noted that America's future as a spacefaring nation would be decided on nearby Capitol Hill.²⁸

While presidential power captivated space enthusiasts, scholars of the American executive observed its slow decline. "Few if any of our presidents have been the giants American mythology makes them out to be," Cronin explained in a book first published in 1975.²⁹ By overestimating the powers of the office, Cronin warned, people set up unrealistic expectations that would be soon disappointed. The ink was hardly dry on Schlesinger's *Imperial Presidency* when Congress repossessed the president's war-making powers, established a congressional budget process, and drove Nixon from office.³⁰ "As soon as the clamor over the 'imperial presidency' of Vietnam and Watergate subsided, the presidency appeared less conquering than conquered," the political scientist Aaron Wildavsky observed.³¹ Space advocates failed to understand this development even as they sought to revive executive prerogatives by injecting international cooperation into space projects. In Washington, ideological and partisan divisions increasingly affected foreign affairs, and to many, Kennedy's presidency marked the dividing line. The experience that caused space buffs to worship at the altar of presidential power was apparently the top of the mountain. It had been all downhill since, a development lost on most people in the space policy network.

Illumination dawned slowly on the people who had tied their hopes to presidential prerogatives. Space exploration enthusiasts greeted Reagan's 1984 space station directive as a political mandate to take the "next logical step" in space. NASA established a schedule to produce a space station, as Reagan had directed, by 1994.³² But nothing happened. Eight years after Kennedy offered his challenge, Americans stood on the Moon. Ten years after Reagan issued his directive, the space station was mired in political turmoil.

For exploration advocates, a full-fledged confrontation with reality occurred during the debate over the Space Exploration Initiative (SEI). In 1989, President Bush endorsed the ultimate spacefaring objective: human interplanetary travel. He proposed that the United States establish a lunar base and organize a human expedition to Mars, a decision on which he elaborated one year later: "Leadership in space takes more than just dollars: It also takes a decision. And so, I'm announcing one today. . . . I believe that before *Apollo* celebrates the 50th anniversary of its landing on the Moon the American flag should be planted on Mars."³³

Outside the executive office, the presidential proposal was met with disbelief. In spite of a flurry of executive branch activity, Congress refused to appropriate even the modest funds necessary to study expedition technology. Bush complained that Congress "voted to pull the plug, completely gutting the seed money we proposed for the Moon/Mars mission." Commenting on the limits of presidential power, he observed: "Space used to be a bipartisan effort; an American effort. . . . Unfortunately, not everyone on Capitol Hill shares this commitment to investing in America's future."³⁴

The demise of SEI, concurrent with continuing troubles for the earth-orbiting space station, at last forced space exploration champions to question long-held assumptions about presidential omnipotence. Faith in the ability of presidential commitments to free space policy from the constraints of Washington politics finally declined. As the journalist Leonard David pointed out, expensive space efforts such as SEI are extremely tough sells.³⁵

Twenty years earlier, President Nixon had told space supporters to expect as much. Thomas O. Paine, NASA administrator in 1968–70, had put relentless pressure on Nixon to make a commitment to the agency's post-Apollo goals, telling him a month after his inauguration that he had to make a "general directive to define the future goals of manned space flight in the next few months."³⁶ Nixon was more realistic, and he suggested in 1970 that Americans stop thinking about space activities "as a series of separate leaps, each requiring a massive concentration of energy." He added: "Space expenditures must take their proper place within a rigor-

ous system of national priorities. What become a normal and regular part of be special by the time the first Ameri-

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ous system of national priorities. What we do in space from here on in must
become a normal and regular part of our national life."³⁷ Space ceased to
be special by the time the first Americans reached the Moon.

Most space supporters did not understand how truly exceptional the
Apollo mandate was. After the glamor of Kennedy's moment dimmed,
space policy came to rest alongside all the other priorities of government
for which presidential leadership played a diminishing role. This eventu-
ally disappointed those who believed in the power of presidents to make
space exploration special. The Apollo decision was, therefore, an anomaly
in the history of the U.S. space program.³⁸

In reality, questions of space policy and the specific projects that have
developed from it are but a microcosm of larger political trends that have
affected the entire government. The rise and fall of presidential power in
American politics as a whole can be observed in detail within the devel-
opment of the U.S. space program. Seven essays on presidential space policy
are gathered here. They resulted from the two-day symposium organized
in the spring of 1993 by the NASA History Office and the Center for
Congressional and Presidential Studies. These essays analyze presidential
leadership and its relationship to the many agencies of the executive branch,
Congress and its staff, special groups outside of the government, and the
American public. Each essay views the U.S. space effort as a policy issue
as well as a scientific, technical, and engineering endeavor.

The symposium sought to bring together thoughtful scholars and se-
nior government officials in an atmosphere conducive to an honest review
of the U.S. space effort. Leading scholars of the American presidency par-
ticipated in the symposium. None of them—and this was an important
criteria for their participation—had written in any detail about the space
program before, and they were therefore able to comment on it from the
larger perspective of public policy and presidential leadership. This fresh
perspective contributed to an overall reassessment of the role of the pres-
ident in defining and directing the space program.

Five of the essays in this volume deal with specific presidencies and the
approach of each to the development of U.S. space policy. David Calla-
han and Fred I. Greenstein continue the revision of Dwight D. Eisenhow-
er's reputation as president, which has been underway for more than a
decade. They argue that the image of Eisenhower as an amiable "do-noth-
ing" president, who smiled and played golf while crises threatened, is in-
correct. Eisenhower worked strenuously behind the scenes while giving the
appearance of inaction, and in most instances his indirect approach to
leadership was highly effective. He used the power of the emergent "im-

perial presidency" to establish a modest effort that took a measured approach toward space, while doing so in an inconspicuous way.

Michael R. Beschloss's essay on John F. Kennedy and the decision to go to the Moon reinforces the view that the early 1960s were the high point of presidential power in formulating space policy. Using a wealth of documentary information, Beschloss notes that Kennedy's 1961 announcement came at a crucial time in U.S. history when the president could exert control over cold war activities with a relatively free hand. Even as public interest in the cold war waned, the Apollo decision remained a model for a generation of space promoters who saw it as the best means for continuing a far-reaching and assertive exploration agenda.

Robert Dallek's essay on Lyndon B. Johnson and the politics of space comments on how Johnson used both his presidential office and his unparalleled knowledge of Congress to ensure that Apollo was completed within the decade as the fallen Kennedy had proposed. At the same time, Johnson refused to endorse any new, large-scale space endeavors. Both actions reinforced belief in the power of the president to create an invincible space program. By the time Johnson left office, space exploration advocates were firmly committed to the idea of the "imperial presidency" as the only sure means for preserving their future space exploration plans. Advocates did not understand, Dallek makes clear, the difficulties Johnson experienced in maintaining a coalition of interests in support of Project Apollo and how he had to use divergent arguments to sell it to a reluctant Congress.

Joan Hoff's provocative essay on the space program under Richard Nixon and his successors in the 1970s attacks head-on the faith of space program advocates in the power of the presidency. Nixon refused to endorse a strenuous follow-on effort to Project Apollo but did so without convincing space program leaders that his support would mean little in the new social and political environment emerging from the late 1960s. Nixon's inaction further reinforced the belief among space enthusiasts that the president was strong enough to make new exploration goals a reality provided he could be convinced of their legitimacy. Rather than accommodate themselves to the new policy formulation process, space supporters placed the blame on the personality of the president and his unwillingness to step up to the kind of greatness that they believed Kennedy had exhibited.

Lyn Ragsdale's chapter describes how two Republican presidents of the 1980s, Ronald Reagan and George Bush, invoked the rhetoric of Kennedy and wholeheartedly endorsed an aggressive space program. At the same time, their policies never received strong political support from Congress,

from competing sectors of the federal large. Only during the Bush administration does one begin to see that the idea of an As Ragsdale shows, the twin political program and the Space Exploration I enthusiasts to alter their perspectives or in favor of one more attuned to the re

Robert H. Ferrell examines the imp formulation of U.S. space policy. American international affairs strengthens the p faith. Cold war competition certainly s support for the lunar objective. Subseq a variety of purposes within U.S. fore national considerations have driven U constraining the latitude for choice.

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1. Arthur M. Schlesinger Jr., *The I* Mifflin, 1973).

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from competing sectors of the federal bureaucracy, or from the public at large. Only during the Bush administration did space exploration advocates begin to see that the idea of an "imperial presidency" was a myth. As Ragsdale shows, the twin political failures of the early space station program and the Space Exploration Initiative prompted space policy enthusiasts to alter their perspectives on the role of presidential leadership in favor of one more attuned to the realities of modern government.

Robert H. Ferrell examines the impact of international relations on the formulation of U.S. space policy. Among space advocates, the notion that international affairs strengthens the president's hand is a central article of faith. Cold war competition certainly strengthened Kennedy's ability to win support for the lunar objective. Subsequent programs, however, have served a variety of purposes within U.S. foreign policy. Ferrell shows how international considerations have driven U.S. space policy, both enlarging and constraining the latitude for choice.

John M. Logsdon explores the relationship between the desire for presidential leadership and the use of the space program to assist in achieving a position of national supremacy. Finally, the editors of the volume conclude with a basic commentary on NASA's search for an alternative paradigm to shape its space policy agenda. Since Kennedyesque leadership statements have been a chimera in the agency's history, what forces do shape space policy political coalitions? The editors examine the effect of political partisanship, basic ideology, and "pork-barrel" politics on the national space agenda.

Taken together, this collection of essays provides an analysis of the relationships among the president, Congress, and the bureaucracy in formulating and conducting space policy. The essays emphasize the idea of the "imperial presidency" and the misguided reliance on presidential edicts to forward space exploration agendas. The essays demonstrate the way in which political ideas can outlast the realities that create them. The Apollo decision and its accomplishment under Kennedy and Johnson blinded leaders of the civilian space effort to emerging realities and made it hard for them to adjust to a different environment. Since that brief moment in the 1960s when a president prevailed, space exploration advocates have been forced to wrestle with policy questions in a far different manner.

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